

INTRODUCTION TO PEACE PSYCHOLOGY

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Chronology of Peace Psychology

Word “*peace*” is derived from the old French “*pias*” and the Latin word “*pax*” (pac). Peace is often defined in terms of what it is not: “*Peace is the absence of war and violence.*”

However, psychologists defined it in terms of what it is: “*the presence of qualities, values and approaches in human relationships that build greater harmony*” (Handwerker, n.d.).

Peacekeeping, peacemaking, and peacebuilding are in practice since day one, but there was no solid establishment to endorse this concept and practice. Thus, it remained either in shadows or little to nothing.

Definition

Peace psychology can be defined as "the study of mental processes that lead to violence, that prevent violence, and that facilitate nonviolence as well as promoting fairness, respect, and dignity for all, for the purpose of making violence a less likely occurrence and helping to heal its psychological effects" (MacNair, 2003). Roots most historians of psychology trace the founding of modern psychology to a specific event, Wilhelm Wundt's establishing the first experimental laboratory in 1879. Yet psychology has philosophical roots going back to ancient times.

In ancient Judah and Israel, several prophets proposed (to put it in psychological terms) that the cause of war was continued adherence to unhealthy social norms which included exploitation of the poor, greed, lying, and worship of

multiple gods that approved such behavior. They advocated that establishment of peace required adherence to standards of behavior that were universal and involved justice, care for the poor and attention to only one divine authority.

The ancient Greek playwright Aristophanes suggested in his play *Lysistrata* that the psychology of war was that of the arrogance of men and their lust for political power. The play was a comedy in which the women of the opposing sides, lacking the same arrogance, coordinated a sex strike to stop the fighting. First-century Middle Eastern Christian writer James, one of three leaders in the Jerusalem Church, author of an epistle, and by tradition the brother of Jesus, proposed as a psychological cause of war that people had excessive desires for material wealth or prestige that they could not get, and that people were bent on murder when envious and wanting something they cannot have.

17th Century

Czech education reformer Jan Amos Comenius (1592-1670) proposed that the means to peace is education which is international and universal. Beginning in 1628, he published a series of books on educating for understanding between countries of different religions, languages, and ways of life. He argued that all should be educated with universally-shared knowledge regardless of gender or social class. He was invited to several European countries to help reform schools, and earned the title "Teacher of Nations."

19th Century

English Quaker writer Jonathan Dymond (1796-1828) wrote a treatise on the causes and effects of war, collecting and articulating in a coherent framework the ideas of many Quakers and other pacifists of the time (Dymond, 1824). He used philosophical reasoning that foreshadows many current psychological concepts. Quotations from his work could be used to illustrate, among other things, the psychological dynamics of arms races, the effect of war on violent behavior of a community after it is over, the pressures of destructive obedience to authority, habits and associations, the sequential steps or "slippery slope," the dynamics of noncooperation, stress causing over-simplified thinking in policy-makers, and even the use of war as a diversion from scandal as portrayed more recently in the Hollywood movie *Wag the Dog* (Levinson, 1998).

World War 1

With World War I on the horizon, James talked about his belief that war satisfies a deeply felt human need for virtues such as loyalty, discipline, conformity, group cohesiveness, and duty. He also observed that individuals who belong to a group, whether military or otherwise, experience a boost in self-pride when they are proud of their group. Most important, he argued that war is not likely to be eliminated until humans have created a "moral equivalent of war," such as public

service that allows people to experience the virtues that were associated with war making.

World War 2

World War II naturally brought about much more intense interest in the subject of war and peace. In 1944, while the war was still raging, conversations among 25 psychologists led to the issuance of a statement: "Human Nature and Peace: A Statement by Psychologists." With funding from SPSSI, it was mailed to all 3,803 members of APA. Of the 50% who responded, 99% agreed with the statement. On April 5, 1945, the Statement was released to the press and public officials with 2,038 signatures. The statement (Murphy, 1945) had ten principles, which are summarized:

1. War can be avoided, and is not inevitable.
2. The coming generation (children) should be a focus of attention.
3. Group hatreds can be controlled through education and experience
4. All branches of the human family – all races – need to be allowed equal participation in collective security.
5. Peoples must participate in planning their own destiny.
6. Rewards and punishments in defeated peoples should be clear and consistent.
7. Relief and rehabilitation done well can increase self-respect and self-reliance; done poorly, dollar imperialism can bring resentment.
8. The root desires of common people are the safest guide for framing peace

9. The trend of human relationships is toward ever wider units of collective security.

10. Commitments now may prevent post-war apathy

Cold War (1957)

In 1957, as the Cold War continued to take shape and the threat of global war seemed imminent, scholars from a variety of disciplines, including psychology, organized around the idea that disputes could be resolved through dialogue and conflict resolution rather than violence. As the field of conflict resolution gained legitimacy in the United States, “peace” remained obscure in the academic lexicon largely because “peace” was suspect, especially during the McCarthy era (Kelman, 1981). Historically, American psychologists have generally supported the overall direction of U.S. foreign policy, but during the Cold War a number of psychologists broke ranks with U.S. policymakers.

1960s

In the 1960s, a raft of publications signaled an incipient shift from war planning to peace promotion (Wagner, 1985) as psychologists (such as Gordon Allport, Hadley Cantril, and Otto Klineberg) argued that the atomic age required a new form of diplomacy and the abolition of war (Jacobs, 1989). The Journal of Social Issues featured a number of articles by distinguished psychologists who

argued for a new direction in U.S. foreign policy (Russell, 1961). Deutsch described how the U.S.–Soviet relationship could move from mutual terror to mutual trust.

Bronfenbrenner introduced the concept of “mirror images” based on his surveys that revealed Soviet and U.S. citizens had similar negative views of each other. Even “deterrence,” the centerpiece of U.S. foreign policy, came under scrutiny as Milburn pointed out logical and empirical inconsistencies of a policy that could not be proven until it broke down (i.e., an enemy attacked). Katz argued for more research on conflict resolution, national imagery, and public opinions about nuclear war and disarmament.

In addition to journal articles, two edited volumes offered a critique of U.S. foreign policy and proposed avenues for preventing nuclear war (Schwebel, 1965; Wright, Evan, & Deutsch, 1962). Morawski and Goldstein (1985) assessed the significance of changes that took place in the 1960s

- First, the level of analysis was shifted from an exclusive focus on the behavior of individuals to a more inclusive focus on the behavior of nations.
- Second, psychologists began to emphasize the prevention of war rather than preparations for war.
- Third, whereas previous research had attempted to document or generate public consensus with government policy, the new work was critical of U.S. foreign policies.

1970s

In 1970s, domestic concerns took precedence over foreign policy. U.S. psychologists examined topics such as student activism, population growth, changes in sex roles, and a range of issues related to race relations. Psychologists had a significant impact on the desegregation of schools, but the issue of social justice was not yet integrated with the discourse of peace psychology. M. Brewster Smith seemed to capture the views of peace psychologists during the height of the Cold War when he wrote in the foreword to the first book with “peace psychology” in its title: “(During the Cold War) I regarded it as a distraction to include the agenda of social justice under the same banner as avoidance of nuclear war.”

Hence the current theme of peace psychology is the investigation of processes that lead to violence, unfairness, inequality, discrimination among people, and the evaluation of techniques that encourage nonviolent acts, promote fairness, respect to all.

Peace psychology can be defined as "the study of mental processes that lead to violence, that prevent violence, and that facilitate nonviolence as well as promoting fairness, respect, and dignity for all, for the purpose of making violence a less likely occurrence and helping to heal its psychological effects" ([MacNair, 2003](#)).

Peace Psychology is a subfield of psychology and peace research that deals with the psychological aspects of peace, conflict, violence, and war. Though peace psychology has links within all branches of psychology, there are especially strong links to social psychology, political psychology, community psychology and positive psychology.

Peace psychology seeks to develop theories and practices aimed at the prevention and mitigation of direct and structural violence. Framed positively, peace psychology promotes the nonviolent management of conflict and the pursuit of social justice, what we refer to as peacemaking and peacebuilding, respectively.

Our working definition of peace psychology is used to frame the organization of the book, which conforms to a four-way model focusing on direct violence, structural violence, peacemaking and peacebuilding.

Core concepts of peace psychology

Direct Violence

The current topic retains the traditional focus of peace psychology on international relations by applying psychological concepts and theory to problems of interstate violence and the threat of nuclear war. In addition, because direct violence does not neatly follow the contours of the sovereign state system, it reflects a wider radius of violent episodes that vary in scale from two-person intimate

relations to the large-scale violence of genocide.

While different in scale and complexity, these varied forms of violence share several features:

They all engender direct, periodically as events or episodes. acute insults to the psychological or physical well-being of individuals or groups, and they erupt

The analytic tools of peace psychologists are central to understanding many forms of direct violence. For instance, many of the contributors from around the world underscore the importance of *social identity* processes, which are manifested when individuals begin to identify with particular groups and favor their in groups over outgroups. Quite naturally, the basic need to have a sense of who we are is inextricably woven into the fabric of our identity groups. Conflict and violence often erupt when two or more groups of individuals have different identities and see each other as threats to their identity group's continued existence. These identity- based conflicts are central to many forms of violence including hate crimes, gang violence, ethnic conflicts, and even genocide.

Sovereign states have been woefully inadequate in dealing with identity-based problems.

Also reflected throughout the text is peace psychologists' growing appreciation for the structural roots of violent episodes. For example, patriarchal

structures in which males dominate females play a role in intimate violence.

Similarly, cultural narratives that denigrate gays, lesbians, and other marginalized identity groups are predisposing conditions for direct violence. Closer at some forms of violence that are deeply rooted in the structures of a society, what we are calling “**structural violence**.”

Structural Violence

Today, an increasing number of peace psychologists are concerned about structural violence (Galtung, 1969), an **insidious form of violence** that is built into the fabric of political and economic structures of a society (Christie, 1997; Pilisuk, 1998; Schwebel, 1997). Structural violence is a problem in and of itself, killing people just as surely as direct violence. But structural **violence kills people slowly by depriving them of satisfying their basic needs**. Life spans are curtailed when **people are socially dominated, politically oppressed, or economically exploited**. Structural violence is a **global problem in scope, reflected in vast disparities in wealth and health, both within and between societies**.

Galtung (1969) proposed that one way to **define structural violence** was to **calculate the number of avoidable deaths**. **For instance**, **if people die from exposure to inclement conditions when shelter is available for them somewhere in the world, then structural violence is taking place**.

Similarly, structural violence occurs when death is caused by scarcities in food, inadequate nutrition, lack of health care, and other forms of deprivation that could be redressed if distribution systems were more equitably structure



The chapters in Section II make it clear that structural violence is endemic to economic systems that produce a concentration of wealth for some while exploiting others, political systems that give access to some and oppress others, and hierarchical social systems that are suffused with ethnocentrism and intolerance.

Difference between direct and structural violence

Direct violence refers to physical violence that harms or kills people quickly, producing somatic trauma or total incapacitation. In contrast, structural violence kills indirectly and slowly, curtailing life spans by depriving people of material and non-material resources.

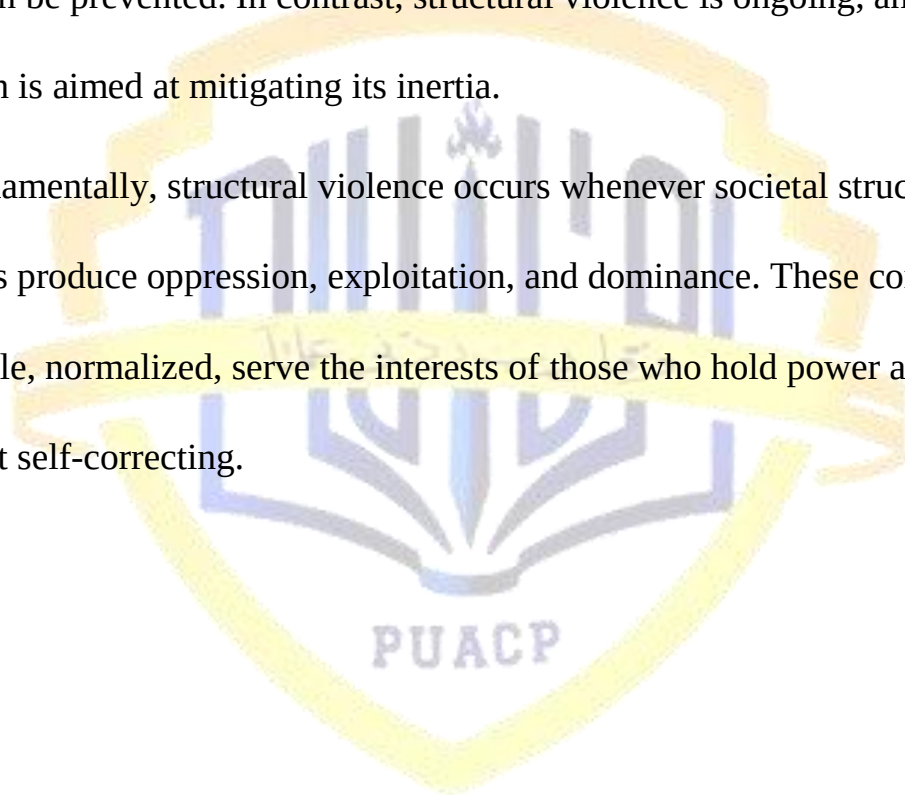
Direct violence is often dramatic and personal. Structural violence is commonplace and impersonal. Direct violence may involve an acute insult to the physical well-being of an individual or group. Structural violence is a chronic threat to well-being.

Direct violence occurs intermittently, as discrete events, while structural violence is ongoing and continuous. In direct violence, the subject-action-object relationships are readily observable while political and economic structures of violence are not directly observable, though their deadly results, which are delayed and diffuse, are apparent in disproportionately high rates of infant and maternal mortality in various pockets of the world.

Because it is possible to infer whether **intentionality** is present in cases of physical violence, the morality of an act can be judged and sanctions can be applied.

Direct violence is often scrutinized by drawing on religious dicta, legal codes, and ethical systems. Intentionality is not as obvious in impersonal systems of structural violence, and considerations of punishment are seldom applicable. Finally, direct violence can be prevented. In contrast, structural violence is ongoing, and intervention is aimed at mitigating its inertia.

Fundamentally, structural violence occurs whenever societal structures and institutions produce oppression, exploitation, and dominance. These conditions are static, stable, normalized, serve the interests of those who hold power and wealth, and are not self-correcting.



Table

Direct Violence	Structural Violence
Kills people directly	Kills people indirectly
Kills quickly	Kills slowly
Somatic harm	Somatic deprivation
Dramatic	Commonplace
Personal	Impersonal
Acute insult to well-being	Chronic insult
well-being	
Intermittent	Continuous
Episodes may be prevented	Inertia may be mitigated

A psychological question, posed in structural violence, is how people, who are morally principled, can live their lives without giving much attention or thought to the pervasive problem of structural violence. To answer this question, research is presented that identifies psychological processes people employ routinely and by so doing, limit their *scope of justice* to include only certain people, thereby perpetuating the socially unjust conditions of structural violence. Authors in Section II also look carefully at the targets of structural violence, especially women and children, because they are disproportionately harmed by structural violence worldwide. An emerging problem of the twenty-first century is globalization, which refers to the worldwide push for free markets that leave in their wake enormous inequalities on a large scale. Globalization is fueling vast disparities in wealth and a global division of labor in which people in some countries profit and engage in the work of the head while others suffer and toil with their hands. At the dawn of the twenty-first century, militarization continues to be an important source of structural violence, generating vast inequalities in coercive power and fueling the potential for episodes of violence, as big powers supply arms to smaller countries around the world.

Although we have highlighted distinctions between direct and structural violence, the relationship between direct and structural violence is *circular*. For example, the man who physically abuses a woman is enacting a dominance

hierarchy that is supported by patriarchal narratives in a society. At the same time, his violent act reinforces the structural arrangement that puts men in a dominant position over women. Hence, direct violence is not a stand-alone phenomenon; instead, direct and structural violence operate together forming an interlocking *system of violence*. The challenge for peace psychologists is to become systems analysts, which requires an effort to simultaneously focus on the individual as the locus of the problem while also transforming the structural and cultural context within which violent behavior is embedded.

we look at two kinds of peace processes which form a *system of peace* that is well suited for the prevention and mitigation of direct and structural violence. We begin with *peacemaking*, an attempt to prevent or mitigate direct violence by promoting the nonviolent management of conflict.

Peacemaking

Peacemaking is **designed to reduce the frequency and intensity of direct violence**. The section on peacemaking begins with a chapter on U.N.

peacekeeping, an approach in which would-be combatants are separated by neutral forces. Peacekeeping may be used flexibly, either before or after episodes of direct violence, that is, **to prevent or mitigate episodes of violence**. Peacekeeping has

traditionally focused on managing, rather than resolving, conflicts.

Several topics are discussed to the topic, “conflict resolution,” reflecting the emphasis in peace psychology on the prevention of violent episodes by using procedures that encourage dialogue, empathy, and win/win outcomes.

Contemporary theorists and practitioners in conflict resolution view conflict as a perceptual event, arising when two or more parties perceive their goals as incompatible with one another. By convention, psychologists’ separate thought and action, which allows conflict practitioners to decouple the perception of incompatible goals (conflict) from violent behavior, and deal with the former before the outbreak of the latter. Therefore, although conflicts may lead to direct physical violence, the perception of incompatible goals does not make violence inevitable. What matters most is whether or not the parties in a conflict use the situation as an opportunity for creative problem solving that can benefit both or alternatively mismanage the conflict in ways that damage the relationship (Rubin & Levinger, 1995). Because the meanings of conflict and resolution are always embedded within the context of a particular culture, we also have included a chapter that highlights the importance of cultural contexts.

Although conflict resolution procedures attempt to prevent episodes of violence, in many instances, when violence is not prevented, other efforts are

needed that are better suited for postwar interventions. Several topics address the aftermath of violence and the importance of addressing psychological, political, and economic dimensions of the problems that arise in the wake of violent episodes. Topics include the problem of post-war trauma, reconciliation in divided societies, and the broader problem of societal reconstruction. Even though these post-war interventions take place after-the-fact, they can interrupt repeated episodes or cycles of violence, and thereby serve as a form of violence prevention. Although peacemaking is often very useful, the approach has limitations, not least of which is the problem that peacemaking can be used as a tool by those with power who can insist on peaceful means of resolving disputes, while ignoring socially just ends. The dialogue process that characterizes peacemaking approaches is important but a sustainable peace requires structural and cultural peacebuilding, actions and supporting narratives that redress the deeper and more permanent roots of the problem.

Peacebuilding

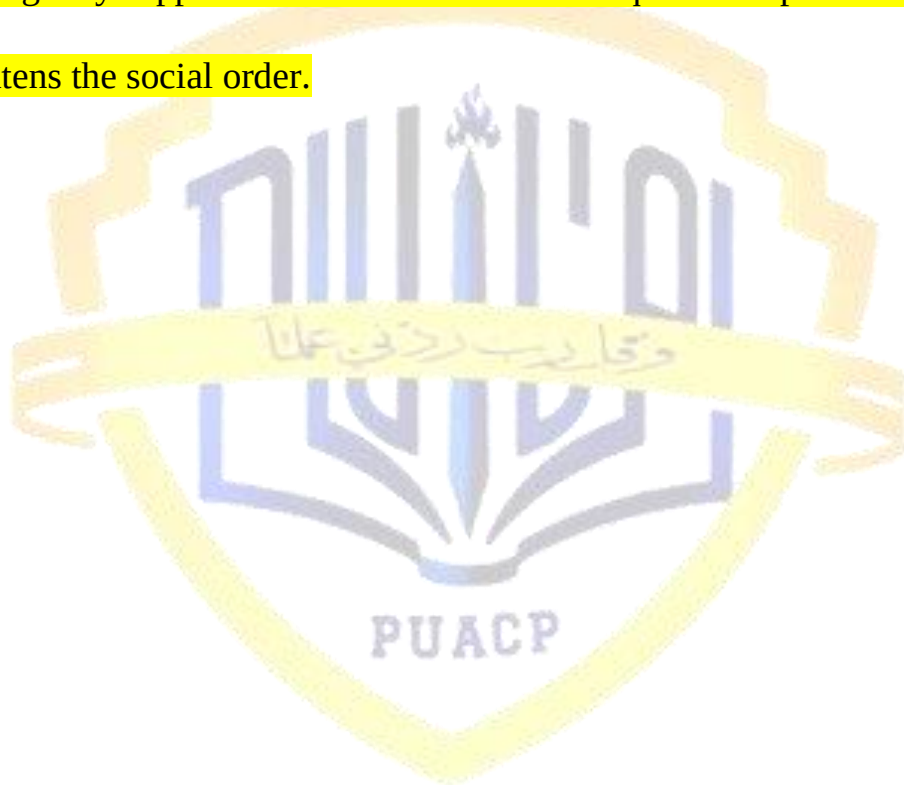
While preventing and mitigating episodes of destructive conflict and violence are familiar moorings for peace psychologists, we seek to enlarge our scope of inquiry and practice by mitigating the inertia of structural violence. Just as we

found it useful to distinguish direct and structural violence, we also see merit in distinguishing peacemaking (Section III) from peacebuilding, **the latter of which refers to the pursuit of social justice** (Section IV).

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that redress the deeper and more permanent roots of the problem. Section IV: Peacebuilding While preventing and mitigating episodes of destructive conflict and violence are familiar moorings for peace psychologists, we seek to enlarge our scope of inquiry and practice by mitigating the inertia of structural violence. Just as we found it useful to distinguish direct and structural violence, we also see merit in distinguishing peacemaking (Section III) from peacebuilding, the latter of which refers to the pursuit of social justice (Section IV). The issue of social justice (Deutsch, 1985) and positive approaches to peace that emphasize human interdependence and the satisfaction of needs is not new to the field of psychology (Wagner, 1988), nor to the interdisciplinary field of peace studies (Smoker, Davies, & Munske, 1990). But once again, we are particularly indebted to Galtung's (1996) work in the multidisciplinary field of peace studies, where the distinction between peacemaking and peacebuilding is central to the discourse. In Table 2, we delineate a number of differences between peacemaking and peacebuilding. As noted in Table 2, the term **“peacemaking” refers to a set of actions that reduce the likelihood of violent episodes.** In **contrast,** **peacebuilding is designed to reduce structural violence.** **Peacemaking emphasizes nonviolent means while peacebuilding emphasizes socially just ends.** **Peacemaking tends to be reactive, arising from the threat or actual use of direct violence.** **Peacebuilding can be proactive, addressing long-term structural**

inequalities that may become antecedents of violent episodes. Peacemaking is temporal and spatial, satisfying the current interests of conflicted parties who occupy a particular geopolitical space. Peacebuilding is ubiquitous and less constrained by time and place. Peacemaking emphasizes the prevention of violence while peacebuilding emphasizes the promotion of social justice. Peacemaking may support the interests of the status quo while peacebuilding often threatens the social order.



MCQS

1. Peace psychology can be defined as "the study of mental processes that lead to_____:

- a. **Violence**
- b. Mental Process
- c. Behavior of person
- d. Different activities

2. The purpose of Peace Psychology is to heal_____:

- a. Social effects
- b. **Psychological effects**
- c. Gender effects
- d. Cognitive effects

3. There are _____ types of violence :

- a. 2
- b. 3
- c. **4**
- d. 7

4. _____ type of violence kill people directly:

- a. **Direct violence**
- b. Structural Violence
- c. both a and b
- d. none

5. _____ violence immortal and unintentional:

- a. Peacemaking
- b. **Structural violence**
- c. both a and b
- d. none

Answer these Questions:

1. Define Peace Psychology?

Peace psychology can be defined as "the study of mental processes that lead to violence, that prevent violence, and that facilitate nonviolence as well as promoting fairness, respect, and dignity for all, for the purpose of making violence a less likely occurrence and helping to heal its psychological effects" (MacNair, 2003).

2. What is the four way of violence in Peace Psychology?

Our working definition of peace psychology is used to frame the organization of the book, which conforms to a four-way model focusing on:

- Direct violence
- Structural violence
- Peacemaking
- Peacebuilding.

3. How many types of identity based conflicts?

These identity- based conflicts are central to many forms of violence :

- Hate crimes
- Gang violence

- Ethnic conflicts
- Genocide

4. When does structural violence occur?

Structural violence occurs whenever societal structures and institutions produce oppression, exploitation, and dominance. These conditions are static, stable, normalized, serve the interests of those who hold power and wealth, and are not self-correcting.

5. Difference between Direct violence and Structural Violence?

Direct Violence	Structural Violence
Kills people directly	Kills people indirectly
Kills quickly	Kills slowly
Somatic harm	Somatic deprivation
Dramatic	Commonplace
Personal	Impersonal
Acute insult to well-being	Chronic insult to
well-being Intermittent	Continuous
Subject-action-object observable	Subject-action-object

unobservable Intentional

immoral Unintentional

and amoral

Episodes may be prevented

Inertia may be mitigated

